Selective Exposure, Heterogeneous Responses, and Sign Reversal in the Political Consequences of Violence

Supporting Information

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Contents

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Appendix A Principal Strata Framework: Proofs

This section provides formal derivations for all results in section "A Principal Strata Framework."

A1.1 Preliminaries

Let units belong to one of four principal strata: Always Participate (A), Participate if Treated (T), Participate if Untreated (U), and Never Participate (N).
Let π_θ denote the population share of stratum θ, with $\sum_\theta \pi_\theta = 1$. Let ρ_θ denote the probability of treatment for units in stratum θ. The marginal probability of treatment is

$$Pr(Z = 1) = \sum_\theta \pi_\theta \rho_\theta.$$

For binary participation outcomes, individual treatment effects are 0 in strata A and N, 1 in T, and -1 in U.

A1.2 Average Treatment Effect (ATE)

Proof that $ATE = \pi_T - \pi_U$. By definition,

$$ATE = E[Y(1)] - E[Y(0)].$$

Using the potential outcomes in Table 1,

$$E[Y(1)] = \pi_A \cdot 1 + \pi_T \cdot 1 + \pi_U \cdot 0 + \pi_N \cdot 0 = \pi_A + \pi_T,$$

$$E[Y(0)] = \pi_A \cdot 1 + \pi_T \cdot 0 + \pi_U \cdot 1 + \pi_N \cdot 0 = \pi_A + \pi_U.$$

Thus,

$$ATE = (\pi_A + \pi_T) - (\pi_A + \pi_U) = \pi_T - \pi_U.$$

□

A1.3 Average Treatment Effect on the Treated (ATT)

Proof that $ATT = \frac{\pi_T \rho_T - \pi_U \rho_U}{Pr(Z=1)}$. By definition,

$$ATT = E[Y(1) - Y(0) \mid Z = 1].$$

Only strata T and U contribute nonzero treatment effects. Conditioning on strata and using the law of total probability,

$$ATT = \frac{\pi_T \rho_T \cdot 1 + \pi_U \rho_U \cdot (-1)}{Pr(Z = 1)} = \frac{\pi_T \rho_T - \pi_U \rho_U}{Pr(Z = 1)}.$$

□

It is useful to re-express the numerator as

$$\pi_T \rho_T - \pi_U \rho_U = \pi_T(Pr(Z = 1) - (Pr(Z = 1) - \rho_T)) - \pi_U(Pr(Z = 1) - (Pr(Z = 1) - \rho_U)),$$

which will be used below.

A1.4 Relationship Between ATE and ATT

Let $p = Pr(Z = 1)$ for notational convenience. From the expressions above,

$$ATE - ATT = (\pi_T - \pi_U) - \frac{\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U}{p} = \frac{(\pi_T - \pi_U)\,p - (\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U)}{p}.$$

Define

$$N \equiv (\pi_T - \pi_U)\,p - (\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U)\,.$$

Then

$$ATE > ATT \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad N > 0,$$

and

$$N = \pi_T(p - \rho_T) + \pi_U(\rho_U - p).$$

Condition for $ATE > ATT$

Proof. Using the expressions above,

$$ATE > ATT \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad \pi_T - \pi_U > \frac{\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U}{p},$$

which is equivalent to

$$(\pi_T - \pi_U)p > \pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U,$$

or

$$N = \pi_T(p - \rho_T) + \pi_U(\rho_U - p) > 0.$$

□

The sign of N depends on the relative magnitudes of (π_T, π_U) and (ρ_T, ρ_U).

Case: $\rho_T < p < \rho_U$**.** In this case $(p - \rho_T) > 0$ and $(\rho_U - p) > 0$. Since $\pi_T, \pi_U \geq 0$ and at least one of them is positive whenever there is any treatment effect, $N > 0$ and therefore $ATE > ATT$.

Case: $\rho_T > p > \rho_U$**.** In this case $(p - \rho_T) < 0$ and $(\rho_U - p) < 0$, so $N < 0$ (again, provided π_T and π_U are not both zero), implying $ATE < ATT$.

Additional cases. The inequality $ATE > ATT$ can also hold when both strata are either less likely than average or more likely than average to be treated. Using $N = \pi_T(p - \rho_T) + \pi_U(\rho_U - p)$:

- If both strata have probabilities of receiving treatment less than average, $\max\{\rho_T, \rho_U\} < p$, then $(p - \rho_T) > 0$ and $(p - \rho_U) > 0$, so $(\rho_U - p) < 0$. In this case $N > 0$ whenever
$$\frac{\pi_T}{\pi_U} > \frac{p - \rho_U}{p - \rho_T}.$$
- If both strata have probabilities of receiving treatment greater than average, $\min\{\rho_T, \rho_U\} > p$, then $(p - \rho_T) < 0$ and $(p - \rho_U) < 0$, so $(\rho_U - p) > 0$. In this case $N > 0$ whenever
$$\frac{\pi_T}{\pi_U} < \frac{p - \rho_U}{p - \rho_T}.$$

A1.5 Sharp Bounds on the ATE-ATT Relationship

The following result provides closed-form sharp bounds on the relationship between ATE and ATT for any feasible parameter vector consistent with the observed data.[1]

Proposition A1. *For any feasible parameter vector (π, ρ) consistent with the data:*

$$ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) - Pr(Y=1, Z=0) \leq ATE \leq ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) + Pr(Y=0, Z=0). \tag{1}$$

These bounds are sharp: for each inequality, there exists a feasible parameter vector that achieves equality.

Proof. From Propositions 1 and 2:

$$\begin{aligned} ATE - ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) &= (\pi_T - \pi_U) - (\pi_T \rho_T - \pi_U \rho_U) \\ &= \pi_T(1-\rho_T) - \pi_U(1-\rho_U). \end{aligned}$$

This quantity captures the difference in "untreated mass" between the two responsive strata: $\pi_T(1-\rho_T)$ is the share of T-types who go untreated, while $\pi_U(1-\rho_U)$ is the share of U-types who go untreated.

Upper bound. Since $\pi_U(1-\rho_U) \geq 0$:

$$ATE - ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) \leq \pi_T(1-\rho_T).$$

From the moment conditions, $Pr(Y=0, Z=0) = \pi_T(1-\rho_T) + \pi_N(1-\rho_N)$, so $\pi_T(1-\rho_T) \leq Pr(Y=0, Z=0)$. Therefore:

$$ATE \leq ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) + Pr(Y=0, Z=0).$$

Equality is achieved when $\pi_U(1-\rho_U) = 0$ and $\pi_N(1-\rho_N) = 0$, i.e. the entire untreated mass among outcome-zero individuals comes from the T-stratum.

Lower bound. Since $\pi_T(1-\rho_T) \geq 0$:

$$ATE - ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) \geq -\pi_U(1-\rho_U).$$

From the moment conditions, $Pr(Y=1, Z=0) = \pi_A(1-\rho_A) + \pi_U(1-\rho_U)$, so $\pi_U(1-\rho_U) \leq Pr(Y=1, Z=0)$. Therefore:

$$ATE \geq ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1) - Pr(Y=1, Z=0).$$

Equality is achieved when $\pi_T(1-\rho_T) = 0$ and $\pi_A(1-\rho_A) = 0$. $\square$

The bounds have an intuitive interpretation. The ATE counts all members of the responsive strata equally regardless of treatment status, while $ATT \cdot Pr(Z=1)$ counts only those who are treated. The difference between these depends on how many responsive individuals are left untreated: the upper bound is attained when all untreated mass favoring positive effects (T-types) is maximal, while the lower bound is attained when all untreated mass favoring negative effects (U-types) is maximal. These closed-form expressions confirm that the grid search procedure in Section Appendix D achieves the sharp bounds.

[1] I thank Guilherme Duarte for deriving these bounds in his discussion of an earlier version of this paper.

A1.6 Equality of ATE and ATT

Equality $ATE = ATT$ requires $N = 0$, that is,

$$\pi_T(p - \rho_T) + \pi_U(\rho_U - p) = 0.$$

Proof. From the expressions above,

$$ATE = ATT \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad (\pi_T - \pi_U)p = \pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U,$$

which is equivalent to

$$\pi_T(p - \rho_T) + \pi_U(\rho_U - p) = 0.$$

□

A simple and substantively important sufficient condition for this equality is homogeneous treatment probabilities for the treatment-responsive strata,

$$\rho_T = \rho_U = p,$$

which is the case under standard random assignment.

A1.7 Scaling Identity

Proof that $ATT \times Pr(Z = 1) = \pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U$. Starting from

$$ATT = \frac{\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U}{Pr(Z = 1)},$$

multiplying both sides by $Pr(Z = 1)$ yields

$$ATT \times Pr(Z = 1) = \pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U.$$

This expression coincides with the average change in the outcome, ΔY, induced by treatment in the population. □

A1.8 Sign Agreement Under Equal Selection (Corollary 2)

Proof of Corollary 2. Substitute $\rho_U = \rho_T$ into the ATT expression from Proposition 2:

$$\begin{aligned}
ATT &= \frac{\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U}{Pr(Z = 1)} \\
&= \frac{\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_T}{Pr(Z = 1)} && \text{(using } \rho_U = \rho_T\text{)} \\
&= \frac{\rho_T(\pi_T - \pi_U)}{Pr(Z = 1)} && \text{(factoring out } \rho_T\text{)} \\
&= \frac{\rho_T}{Pr(Z = 1)} \cdot ATE && \text{(using } ATE = \pi_T - \pi_U\text{).}
\end{aligned}$$

Since $\rho_T \in (0, 1)$ and $Pr(Z = 1) \in (0, 1)$, the scalar $\rho_T/Pr(Z = 1)$ is strictly positive. Therefore:

- If $ATE > 0$, then $ATT > 0$.

- If $ATE < 0$, then $ATT < 0$.
- If $ATE = 0$, then $ATT = 0$.

In all cases, $\text{sign}(ATT) = \text{sign}(ATE)$. □

Note that equal selection ($\rho_T = \rho_U$) preserves sign but not magnitude. The ATT is rescaled by $\rho_T / Pr(Z = 1)$, which can be greater or less than 1 depending on whether the responsive strata are more or less likely to be treated than average. Corollary 1 is the special case where $\rho_T = Pr(Z = 1)$, so the scaling factor equals one and $ATE = ATT$.

A1.9 Sign-Flip Condition (Proposition 3)

Define $\lambda = \rho_U/\rho_T$ and $\eta = \pi_T/\pi_U$, where both ratios are well-defined since $\pi_T, \pi_U, \rho_T, \rho_U > 0$.

Proof of Proposition 3. **Part 1: Sign of the ATT.**
From Proposition 2, $ATT = (\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U)/Pr(Z = 1)$. Since $Pr(Z = 1) > 0$:

$$\text{sign}(ATT) = \text{sign}(\pi_T\rho_T - \pi_U\rho_U).$$

Part 2: Sign-flip condition.
Suppose $ATE > 0$, so $\pi_T > \pi_U$ and $\eta > 1$. The ATT is negative if and only if

$$\pi_T\rho_T < \pi_U\rho_U \iff \rho_U/\rho_T > \pi_T/\pi_U \iff \lambda > \eta.$$

Analogously, when $ATE < 0$ ($\eta < 1$), the ATT is positive if and only if $\lambda < \eta$.

Part 3: The π_U threshold.
Since $ATE = \pi_T - \pi_U$, we have $\pi_T = \pi_U + ATE$, and therefore

$$\eta = \frac{\pi_T}{\pi_U} = \frac{\pi_U + ATE}{\pi_U} = 1 + \frac{ATE}{\pi_U}.$$

Substituting into $\lambda > \eta$ when $ATE > 0$ and $\lambda > 1$:

$$\lambda > 1 + \frac{ATE}{\pi_U} \iff \pi_U > \frac{ATE}{\lambda - 1}.$$

□

A1.10 ATE and ATT Are Never Sign-Identified

Proposition A2. *Under data regularity ($0 < Pr(Y = y, Z = z)$ for all $(y, z) \in \{0, 1\}^2$), the set of ATEs consistent with the observed data contains both strictly positive and strictly negative values. The same holds for the set of ATTs.*

Throughout this proof, define the observable quantities $m_1 \equiv Pr(Y = 1, Z = 1) = \pi_A\rho_A + \pi_T\rho_T$, $m_2 \equiv Pr(Y = 1, Z = 0) = \pi_A(1 - \rho_A) + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U)$, $p \equiv Pr(Z = 1)$. The data regularity assumption states that all four cell probabilities are strictly positive: $m_1 > 0$, $m_2 > 0$, $p - m_1 > 0$, and $1 - p - m_2 > 0$.

Proof. We prove each direction by explicit construction.

Part (a): There exists a feasible vector with ATE > 0.

Set $\pi_U = 0$. Then $ATE = \pi_T - 0 = \pi_T$, which is positive provided $\pi_T > 0$.

Step 1: Solve for ρ_A from m_2. With $\pi_U = 0$:

$$m_2 = \pi_A(1 - \rho_A) \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \rho_A = 1 - \frac{m_2}{\pi_A}.$$

For $\rho_A \in (0, 1)$: $\rho_A > 0$ requires $\pi_A > m_2$; $\rho_A < 1$ holds since $m_2 > 0$.

Step 2: Solve for ρ_T from m_1.

$$\pi_T \rho_T = m_1 - \pi_A \rho_A = m_1 - \pi_A + m_2 = Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A.$$

For $\rho_T \in (0, 1)$: $\rho_T > 0$ requires $\pi_A < Pr(Y = 1)$; $\rho_T < 1$ requires $\pi_T > Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A$.

Step 3: Verify the range for π_A is non-empty. We need $m_2 < \pi_A < Pr(Y = 1)$. This is non-empty since $Pr(Y = 1) = m_1 + m_2 > m_2$ (using $m_1 > 0$). ✓

Step 4: Choose π_T. Take any $\pi_T \in (Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A, 1 - \pi_A)$. This interval is non-empty since $Pr(Y = 1) < 1$ (from $1 - p - m_2 > 0$ and $p > m_1$). Then $\rho_T = (Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A)/\pi_T \in (0, 1)$. ✓

Step 5: Set π_N and solve for ρ_N. $\pi_N = 1 - \pi_A - \pi_T$. From the treatment probability constraint:

$$\pi_N \rho_N = p - m_1 = Pr(Y = 0, Z = 1).$$

For $\rho_N > 0$: holds since $Pr(Y = 0, Z = 1) > 0$. For $\rho_N < 1$: need $\pi_N > Pr(Y = 0, Z = 1)$. With π_A near m_2 and π_T near $Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A$, we get $\pi_N \approx Pr(Y = 0) > Pr(Y = 0, Z = 1)$ (since $Pr(Y = 0, Z = 0) > 0$). ✓

All constraints are satisfied, and $ATE = \pi_T > 0$.

Part (b): There exists a feasible vector with ATE < 0.

Set $\pi_T = 0$. Then $ATE = -\pi_U < 0$ (provided $\pi_U > 0$).

Step 1: Solve for ρ_A from m_1. With $\pi_T = 0$:

$$m_1 = \pi_A \rho_A \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \rho_A = \frac{m_1}{\pi_A}.$$

For $\rho_A \in (0, 1)$: need $\pi_A > m_1$.

Step 2: Solve for ρ_U from m_2.

$$m_2 = \pi_A(1 - \rho_A) + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U) = (\pi_A - m_1) + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U).$$

So $\pi_U(1 - \rho_U) = m_2 - \pi_A + m_1 = Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A$. For $\rho_U \in (0, 1)$: need $\pi_A < Pr(Y = 1)$ and $\pi_U > Pr(Y = 1) - \pi_A$.

Step 3: Verify the range for π_A is non-empty. We need $m_1 < \pi_A < Pr(Y = 1)$. This is non-empty since $Pr(Y = 1) = m_1 + m_2 > m_1$ (using $m_2 > 0$). ✓

Step 4: Choose π_U. Take any $\pi_U \in (Pr(Y=1) - \pi_A, 1 - \pi_A)$. Non-empty since $Pr(Y=1) < 1$. ✓

Step 5: Set π_N and solve for ρ_N. $\pi_N = 1 - \pi_A - \pi_U$. Then:

$$\pi_N \rho_N = p - \pi_A \rho_A - \pi_U \rho_U = p - m_1 - \pi_U \rho_U.$$

For π_U close to $Pr(Y=1) - \pi_A$, $\pi_U \rho_U$ is arbitrarily small. Since $p - m_1 = Pr(Y=0, Z=1) > 0$, we have $\rho_N > 0$. And $\pi_N \approx Pr(Y=0) > Pr(Y=0, Z=1) \geq \pi_N \rho_N$, so $\rho_N < 1$. ✓

All constraints are satisfied, and $ATE = -\pi_U < 0$.

Since both $ATE > 0$ and $ATE < 0$ are achievable, the identified set of ATEs is never sign-identified. The same constructions establish the result for ATTs: in Part (a) with $\pi_U = 0$, $ATT = \pi_T \rho_T / Pr(Z=1) > 0$; in Part (b) with $\pi_T = 0$, $ATT = -\pi_U \rho_U / Pr(Z=1) < 0$. □

Appendix B Survey Data

A2.1 Samples

This section describes the temporal and geographic coverage of the different LAPOP survey waves and the ENSU survey waves used in the analyses.

A2.1.1 LAPOP

Table A1 shows all the included LAPOP country rounds, the year each round was conducted, and the number of respondents per year. The data was culled so that only respondents who were 19 years or older when responding to the survey were included. This ensures that all survey respondents are entitled to engage in all political participation activities in the prior year by law.

Year	Countries surveyed	N
2010	Argentina, Belize, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Colombia, Costa Rica, Dominican Republic, Ecuador, El Salvador, Guatemala, Honduras, Jamaica, Mexico, Nicaragua, Panama, Paraguay, Peru, Uruguay, Venezuela	33,022
2011	Colombia	1,444
2012	Argentina, Belize, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Colombia, Costa Rica, Dominican Republic, Ecuador, El Salvador, Guatemala, Honduras, Jamaica, Mexico, Nicaragua, Panama, Paraguay, Peru, Uruguay, Venezuela	31,061
2014	Argentina, Belize, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Colombia, Costa Rica, Dominican Republic, Ecuador, El Salvador, Guatemala, Honduras, Jamaica, Mexico, Nicaragua, Panama, Paraguay, Peru, Uruguay, Venezuela	31,186
2016	Colombia, Costa Rica, Dominican Republic, Ecuador, El Salvador, Honduras, Mexico, Nicaragua, Paraguay	13,233
2017	Argentina, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Guatemala, Jamaica, Panama, Peru, Uruguay	14,386
2018	Colombia, Costa Rica, El Salvador, Honduras, Panama	7,406
2019	Argentina, Bolivia, Brazil, Chile, Dominican Republic, Ecuador, Guatemala, Jamaica, Mexico, Nicaragua, Paraguay, Peru, Uruguay	19,073

Table A1: Table lists all the country-year LAPOP surveys included in the pooled data. All country surveys between 2010 and 2019 were included.

A2.1.2 ENSU

Table A2 shows the number of respondents per ENSU survey wave, as well as whether criminal victimization was asked during that specific period. During the COVID pandemic in 2020, INEGI canceled the second wave of the ENSU but collected data on criminal victimization for that period during the next survey round.

Year	Quarter	N	Victimization
2017	1	14,497	No
2017	2	15,272	Yes
2017	3	15,303	No
2017	4	15,072	Yes
2018	1	15,172	No
2018	2	17,548	Yes
2018	3	20,163	No
2018	4	18,017	No
2019	1	18,113	No
2019	2	19,010	Yes
2019	3	22,392	No
2019	4	22,158	Yes
2020	1	22,416	No
2020	3	22,122	Yes
2020	4	22,283	Yes
2021	1	22,307	No
2021	2	22,411	Yes
2021	3	23,356	No
2021	4	23,428	Yes
2022	1	23,577	No
2022	2	22,411	Yes
2022	3	24,435	No
2022	4	24,402	Yes
2023	1	23,778	No
2023	2	24,435	Yes
2023	3	24,493	No
2023	4	24,064	Yes

Table A2: Table shows the number of survey respondents per survey wave included in the ENSU data used in the analyses and whether criminal victimization was asked during each survey round.

A2.2 Measurement

A2.2.1 LAPOP

Table A3 reports the survey questions and measures employed in the paper for the LAPOP analyses.

Construct	LAPOP Survey Question	Scale
Community problem-solving	In the past 12 months, have you contributed to solving a community or neighborhood problem? How frequently?	1–4
Attended political meetings	In the past 12 months, have you attended a political party or political movement meeting? How frequently?	1–4
Attended community improvement meetings	In the past 12 months, have you attended community improvement meetings? How frequently?	1–4
Attended protest	In the past 12 months, have you attended a public protest?	Yes/No
Crime victimization	Have you been a victim of any type of crime in the past 12 months? That is, have you been a victim of robbery, burglary, assault, fraud, blackmail, extortion, violent threats, or any other type of crime in the past 12 months?	Yes/No
Would vote next week	If the next presidential elections were being held this week, what would you do?	4 response options

Table A3: LAPOP survey questions used to measure political participation and criminal victimization. The table shows English translations and response scales for each question. For analysis, all continuous participation measures were dichotomized, with 1 indicating any activity during the previous year and 0 indicating no engagement in the activity.

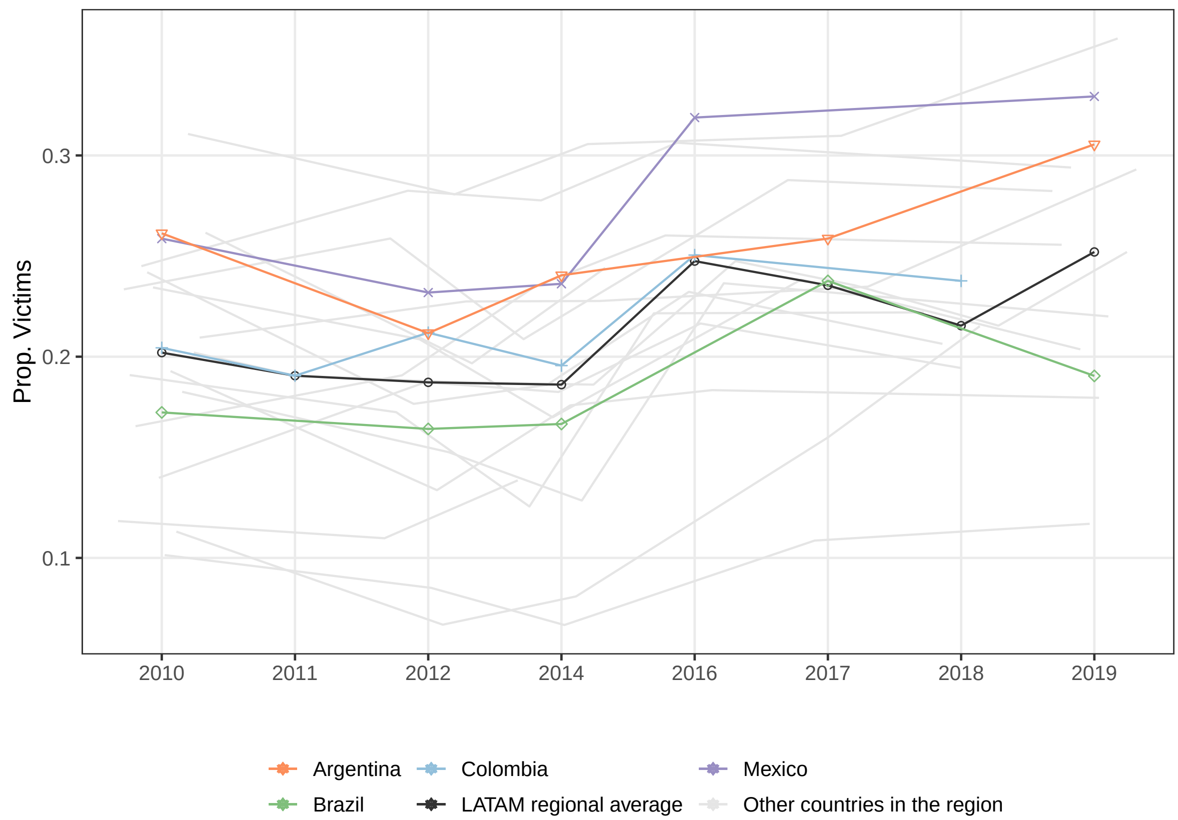

Figure A1: Figure shows the proportion of respondents who report being a crime victim in the past 12 months by survey round and country.

Last, Figure A1 shows the country-specific and pooled proportion of respondents who reported being victims of crime in each survey wave. As can be seen, the regional average fluctuates slightly between .19 and .26 for the entire period, with significant within-country variation.

A2.2.2 Variable Construction

All simulation results are run with binarized versions of the treatment variables. To recode, binarized variables for political meeting attendance and community meeting attendance take the value of 1 if the respondent said they attended the meeting at least once in the previous year, 0 otherwise. For "would vote next week" the variable takes the value of 1 when respondents reported they would cast a ballot for any candidate, and 0 when they report they would not vote.

A2.2.3 ENSU

Construct	ENSU question	Scale
Crime victimization	In the last six months, have you or a member of your household experienced any of the following: vehicle theft, vehicle accessory theft, any other kind of theft, burglary, robbery, threats, or extortion?	Yes/No
Unsafe: City	When thinking about crime, do you believe living in (CITY) is?	Safe/Unsafe
Unsafe: Frequented streets	When thinking about crime, do you feel safe or unsafe in the streets you frequent?	Safe/Unsafe
Unsafe: House	When thinking about crime, do you feel safe or unsafe in your house?	Safe/Unsafe
Unsafe: Public transport	When thinking about crime, do you feel safe or unsafe in public transport?	Safe/Unsafe
Unsafe: Work	When thinking about crime, do you feel safe or unsafe at work?	Safe/Unsafe
Witnessed: Gangs	In the last three months, have you seen or heard violent gangs in your home's surrounding area?	Yes/No
Witnessed: Robberies	In the last three months, have you seen or heard robberies or thefts in your home's surrounding area?	Yes/No
Witnessed: Shots fired	In the last three months, have you seen or heard frequent gunshots in your home's surrounding area?	Yes/No
Witnessed: Vandalism	In the last three months, have you seen or heard vandalism, graffiti, broken glass, etc., in your home's surrounding area?	Yes/No
Witnessed: Drugs used or sold	In the last three months, have you seen or heard in your home's surrounding area of drugs being used or sold?	Yes/No
For fear of crime: Stopped going out at night	In the last three months, for fear of being victimized, have you changed your habits regarding walking around your neighborhood after 8 pm	Yes/No
For fear of crime: Stopped visiting friends or family	In the last three months, for fear of being victimized, have you changed your habits regarding visiting friends or family	Yes/No
For fear of crime: Stopped wearing valuables	In the last three months, for fear of being victimized, have you changed your habits regarding wearing jewelry, valuables, carrying money, or carrying credit cards	Yes/No
Trust: Army	How much do you trust the Army	1-4
Trust: Police	How much do you trust the State Police	1-4
Conflicts: Had any?	Have you had any conflicts with family members, neighbors, work or school colleagues, commercial establishments, or government authorities due to situations you consider detrimental to you or annoying?	Yes/No
Conflicts: Resulted in shoving, punching, or kicking	Did the conflict result in punching, shoving, or kicking?	Yes/No
Conflicts: With alcohol users, drug users, or gang	Did you have a conflict due to harassment by alcohol abusers, drug abusers, or gang members?	Yes/No
Conflicts: With Police	Did you have a conflict due to harassment by police officers?	Yes/No
Conflicts: With authorities	Did you have a direct conflict with a government authority?	Yes/No
Conflicts: With neighbors	Did you have a direct conflict with a neighbor?	Yes/No
Conflicts: With family members	Did you have a direct conflict with a family member?	Yes/No
Conflicts: With strangers on the street	Did you have a direct conflict with a stranger on the street	Yes/No
Mobility: Frequency of leaving home	Over the last six months, be it to go to work, school, the doctor, shopping, or any reason, how often did you leave your home?	1-7

Table A4: Table shows the English translation and the scale of all the ENSU survey questions used in the analyses.

All continuous measures, including trust in the Army, trust in the Police, and frequency of leaving home, are standardized within quarter and locality. To do so, I use the following formula:
For a variable X_i:

$$X_i^Z = \frac{X_i - \overline{X}_i}{\sqrt{\text{Var}[X_i]}} \tag{2}$$

Figure A2 shows the proportion of survey respondents who report having experienced any of the crimes included in the measure of 'crime victimization.' The first quarter of 2020 shows a significant reduction, also seen in administrative data, due to COVID restrictions. The crime rate increases and flattens after that period, although it remains lower than in the prior years.

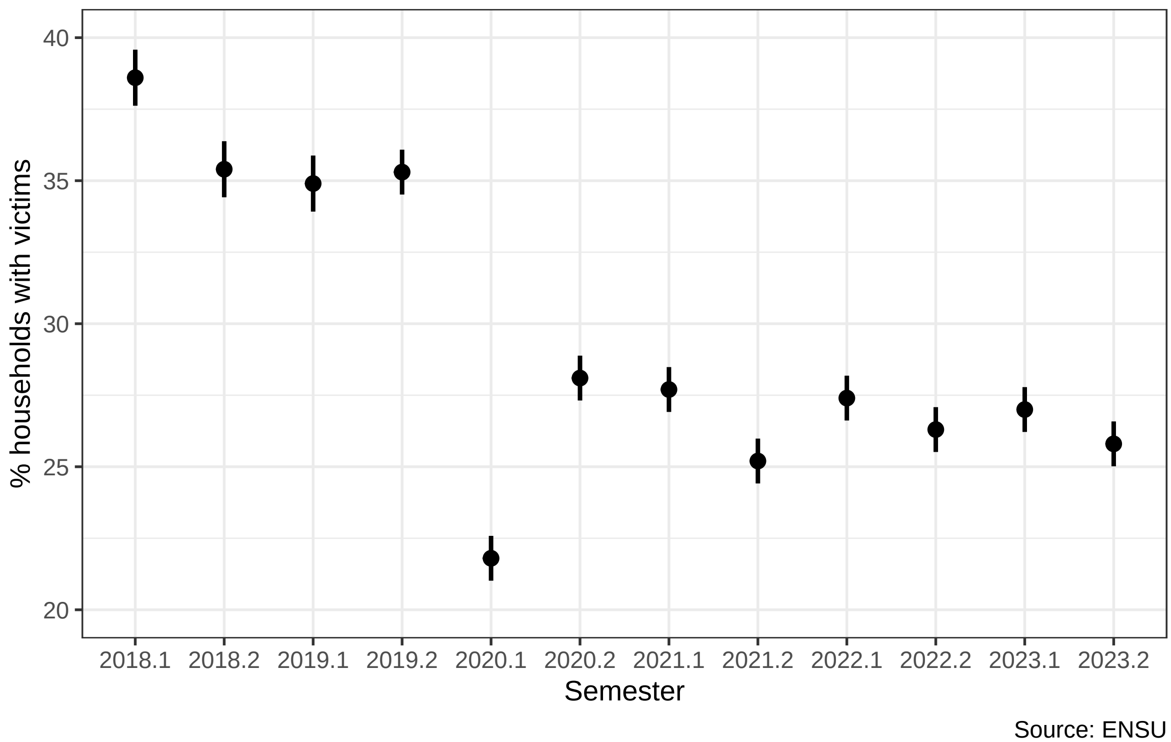

Figure A2: Figure shows the proportion of respondents who report having been a victim of vehicle theft, vehicle accessory theft, any other kind of theft, burglary, robbery, threats, or extortion during the last six months.

A2.3 Bateson (2012) Replication

The Latin American results in the canonical paper by Bateson (2012) show that self-reported victimization is positively associated with all seven civic and political engagement measures. Specifically, the author shows that victims report more interest in politics, attending protests more often, attempting to convince people to support a political candidate (proselytization), and attending community problem-solving, community improvement, municipal council, and political meetings. I use repeated cross-sections from the 20 countries included in my sample for the analysis. This extended dataset allows me to replicate the pooled analyses in Bateson (2012) and examine country-specific differences in political behavior between victims and non-victims.

Figure A3 shows the results. As reported in Bateson (2012), all political participation and civic engagement measures positively correlate to victimization in the pooled analyses. Additionally, I find that the same holds true within countries. Although results are noisier for measures like political interest or proselytization, all estimated effects are either positive or statistically indistinguishable from zero at conventional levels.

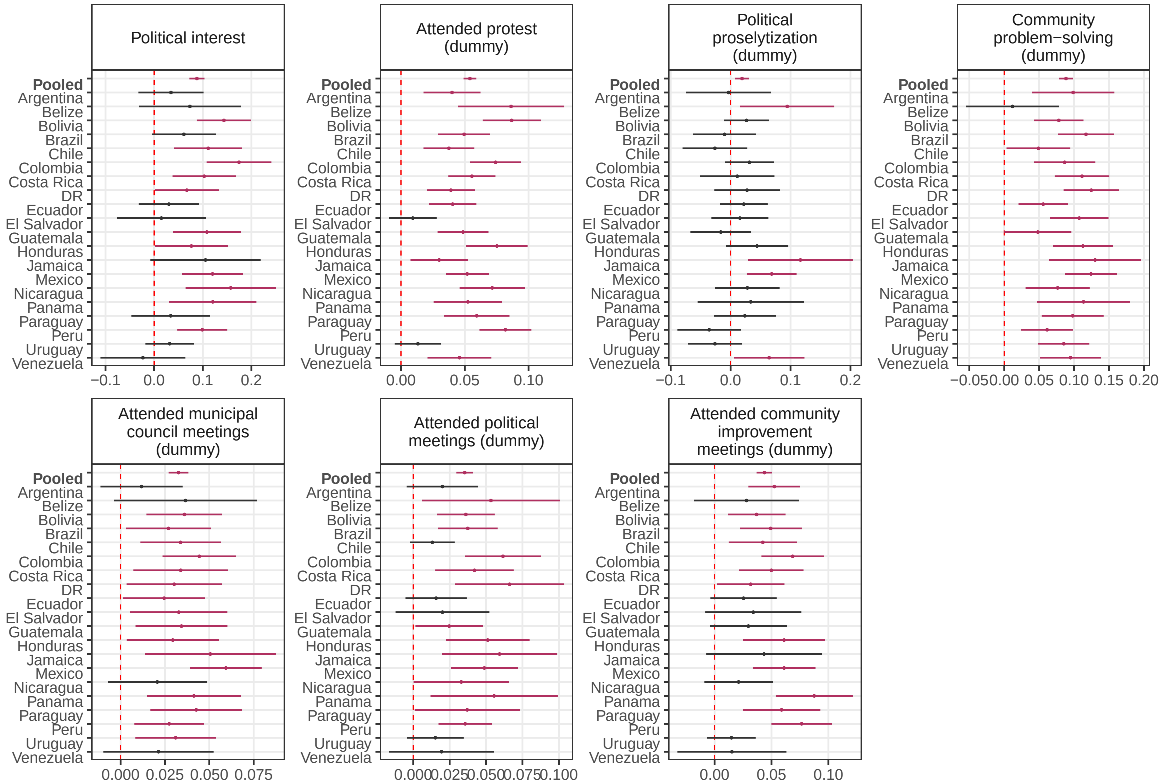

Figure A3: Figure shows the difference in participation and civic engagement outcomes between self-reported victims and non-victims, estimated with LAPOP (2022). The specification comes from Bateson (2012) but includes $Year \times Country$ fixed effects. Robust errors clustered at the primary sampling unit.

A2.4 Compliance with APSA's Principles and Guidance for Human Subjects Research

This study consists exclusively of secondary analysis of de-identified, publicly available survey data. It does not meet the federal definition of human subjects research under 45 CFR 46.102(e) and is classified as Not Human Subjects Research (NHSR). No new data were collected. APSA's principles are reproduced in bold below, with notes on this study's compliance.

- **Power: When designing and conducting research, political scientists should be aware of power differentials between researcher and researched and the ways in which such power differentials can affect the voluntariness of consent and the evaluation of risk and benefit.** Only publicly available, de-identified survey data were used for analysis. No respondents were directly engaged.
- **Consent: Political science researchers should generally seek informed consent from individuals who are directly engaged by the research process.** No respondents were directly engaged. Informed consent was obtained at the point of original data collection by each survey instrument.
- **Deception: Political science researchers should carefully consider any use of deception and the ways in which deception can conflict with participant autonomy.** No deception is involved. Only pre-existing survey data were used, and no subjects were contacted.

- **Harm and trauma: Political science researchers should consider the harms associated with their research.** The study poses no risk of harm to subjects. All analysis is conducted on de-identified, publicly available data. Subjects are not contacted, and no individual-level identification is attempted.
- **Confidentiality: Political science researchers should generally keep the identities of research participants confidential; when circumstances require, researchers should adopt the higher standard of ensuring anonymity.** All datasets used are anonymized at the source. Respondents are identified only by survey-assigned codes that do not permit re-identification. The paper presents only aggregated and modeled results.
- **Impact: Political science researchers conducting studies on political processes should consider the broader social impacts of the research process as well as the impact on the experience of individuals directly engaged by the research.** The study uses retrospective survey data and does not intervene in any ongoing political process. Findings contribute to academic understanding of the participatory consequences of violence without altering the experiences of individuals represented in the data.
- **Laws, Regulations, and Prospective Review: Political science researchers should be aware of relevant laws and regulations governing their research-related activities.** As secondary analysis of de-identified, publicly available survey data, this study does not constitute human subjects research under 45 CFR 46.102(e) and is classified as Not Human Subjects Research (NHSR). The original data collections obtained the necessary approvals from their respective institutions.

Appendix C Coded Review of the Crime–Participation Literature

This appendix documents the coded review of research on crime and political participation discussed in the main text. Papers entered the review if they met three criteria. First, political participation appeared as an outcome. Second, individual criminal victimization was the independent variable of interest in at least one reported estimate. Third, the unit of observation was the individual. I identified candidate papers through keyword searches in OpenAlex and citation snowballing from Bateson (2012). Nine peer-reviewed papers in political science and related fields met the inclusion criteria. To the best of my knowledge, these papers constitute the full set of studies meeting those criteria.

For each paper, I constructed an estimate-level dataset from the results reported in the main text. I coded every specification in which political participation was the dependent variable and individual criminal victimization was the independent variable of interest, as long as it was reported in the main body of the paper. The dataset includes primary estimates, robustness checks, and subgroup analyses, for 46 coefficients in total. I excluded two estimates for vote choice and political efficacy, because those outcomes fall outside the participation family, and twelve interaction terms together with the victimization coefficients of interaction models, because they estimate conditional rather than unconditional effects.

Dataset construction was assisted by Claude Opus 4.8, which had access to the full text of each paper. The model was instructed to identify all qualifying estimates and record the outcome, specification, direction, statistical significance, and the table or page number.[2] I then verified every entry against the original article. Verification resulted in only a small number of additional estimates that the model had overlooked.

Each estimate is coded as positive or negative when statistically significant at the threshold used in the original paper, and null otherwise. Because papers often report several specifications for the same outcome, I designated one estimate per outcome as the primary estimate. This is the specification the paper presents as its main result for that outcome. The remaining estimates are classified as robustness or subgroup specifications.

Table A5 summarizes the review at the outcome level. Each row corresponds to one dependent variable as named in the original paper. The table records the research design, stated estimand if any, direction of the primary estimate, and source of the sample. Outcomes include both non-electoral participation and electoral turnout. For Bateson (2012), each regional barometer sample enters as a separate row.

[2] Read the attached article. List every regression estimate in which a form of political participation is the dependent variable and individual criminal victimization is the independent variable of interest. For each estimate, record the outcome as named by the authors, the specification, the direction of the coefficient, its statistical significance at the threshold used by the authors, and the table or page where it appears.

Paper	Outcome	Design	Stated estimand	Direction	Sample
Bateson (2012)	Community action	Cross-section	none	+	LAPOP 2010, Latin America and Caribbean
	Community action			+	LAPOP 2010, United States and Canada
	Community action			+	Afrobarometer Round 4
	Community meetings			+	LAPOP 2010, Latin America and Caribbean
	Community meetings			+	LAPOP 2010, United States and Canada
	Community meetings			+	Afrobarometer Round 4
	Town meetings			+	LAPOP 2010, Latin America and Caribbean
	Town meetings			+	LAPOP 2010, United States and Canada
	Political meetings			+	LAPOP 2010, Latin America and Caribbean
	Political meetings			+	LAPOP 2010, United States and Canada
	Protest			+	LAPOP 2010, Latin America and Caribbean
	Protest			+	LAPOP 2010, United States and Canada
	Protest			+	Afrobarometer Round 4
	Political persuasion			+	LAPOP 2010, Latin America and Caribbean
	Political persuasion			+	LAPOP 2010, United States and Canada
	Political conversations			+	Afrobarometer Round 4
	Political conversations			+	Eurobarometer 54.1
	Political conversations			+	Asian Barometer Wave II
	Group leadership			+	Afrobarometer Round 4
Berens and Dallendörfer (2019)	Vote intention (any victimization)	Cross-section	none	0	LAPOP 2010–2014, 25 countries
	Vote intention (non-violent crime)			+	
	Vote intention (violent crime)			0	
Dorff (2017)	Neighborhood association meeting	Cross-section	none	+	Mexico, national survey, July 2012
	Party meeting			+	
	NGO meeting			+	
	Union meeting			+	
Laterzo (2021)	Party engagement	Panel (within)	ATE[a]	+	Juiz de Fora and Caxias do Sul, Brazil, panel
	Political conversations			0	
	Community association participation			0	
Ley (2022)	Protest against crime	Cross-section	none	+	Mexico, original survey, 2012
Nussio (2019)	Participation (0–8 activity count)	Cross-section	none	+	Colombia, four LAPOP waves 2013–2015
Pazzona (2020)	Participation in social groups	Cross-section	ATT	+	LAPOP 2004–2012, Latin America pooled
Ponce, Somuano and Velázquez López Velarde (2022)	Contentious tactics vs. doing nothing	Cross-section	none	+	Mexico, INE–COLMEX citizenship survey 2013
	Institutional means vs. doing nothing			0	
	Institutional and contentious vs. doing nothing			+	
Sønderskov et al. (2022)	Municipal turnout, within individuals	Panel (within)	none	+	Denmark, administrative registry, 2009 and 2013 municipal elections
	Municipal turnout, between individuals	Cross-section		−	

[a] Laterzo (2021) labels the target a population-average ATE; empirically, the within-individual design identifies an ATT-type effect among those who become victims.

Table A5: Coded review at the outcome level. Each row corresponds to one outcome as named in the original paper. The direction column reports the primary estimate for that outcome. $+$ denotes a positive estimate significant at the threshold used in the original paper, $-$ a significant negative estimate, and 0 an estimate not distinguishable from zero at that threshold.

The main result from this exercise is that the empirical findings are highly uniform for non-electoral participation. No paper reports a negative primary estimate. Of the 29 primary cross-sectional estimates, 28 are positive, one is null, and none are negative. The 3 within-individual primary estimates of non-electoral participation, all from Laterzo (2021), include one positive and two null estimates. Extending the count to every coded specification does not change the results, as 29 of 31 non-electoral cross-sectional coefficients are positive, and none are negative.

The only negative primary estimate of the effect of criminal victimization in the review concerns electoral turnout. Sønderskov et al. (2022) reports a negative between-individual estimate and a positive within-individual estimate using administrative data from the same elections. The contrast is consistent with a sign change when the estimand changes.

Most strikingly, the evidence is concentrated in a narrow set of designs and settings. All but two papers rely on cross-sectional comparisons. Of the nine papers, seven use only Latin American samples, and four analyze the AmericasBarometer.

Last, the review shows how estimand choice is rarely foregrounded in the empirical literature. seven of the nine papers name no estimand. Pazzona (2020) explicitly targets the ATT using matching on observed covariates. Laterzo (2021) labels the target a population-average ATE, although the within-individual design recovers an ATT-type effect among respondents who become victims.

A3.1 Reading the Evidence under Essential Heterogeneity

The main text takes the population-wide causal interpretation of the literature at face value and asks whether the conclusion that crime mobilizes survives when the causal contrast is defined among victims. The analysis therefore brackets identification and treats estimand choice as the relevant conceptual margin. This section instead asks what the designs used in the literature must assume to identify causal effects under selection on responses. It then asks how those effects must be aggregated to support either a population-wide or a victim-specific interpretation.

Section Appendix C shows that the causal evidence relies overwhelmingly on cross-sectional comparisons between victims and non-victims. A causal interpretation of those comparisons requires conditional independence:

$$\{Y_i(1),\, Y_i(0)\} \perp\!\!\!\perp Z_i \mid X_i.$$

Within strata of observed covariates, victimization must be independent of potential participation both under victimization and in its absence.

Under essential heterogeneity $(Y_i(1), Y_i(0))$ defines the response type $\theta_i \in \{A, T, U, N\}$. Conditional independence therefore requires the sharper

$$Z_i \perp\!\!\!\perp \theta_i \mid X_i.$$

That is, within each observed covariate profile, the four response types must face the same risk of victimization. Covariate adjustment must therefore remove two forms of selection. It must account for differences in participation that would exist without victimization. It must also account for differences in how victimization would change participation. The second requirement is selection on responses. It is part of conditional ignorability, not an additional assumption introduced by the framework.[3]

The substantive difficulty is that the theories used to motivate covariate adjustment also give reasons to doubt that adjustment is sufficient. Mobility, risk tolerance, social embeddedness, and access to protection may shape both victimization risk and the response victimization produces. Conditioning on observed measures of those traits secures identification only if the remaining variation in victimization risk is unrelated to untreated participation and to treatment response. In the language of the framework, covariates must absorb all remaining differences in victimization risk across the four response types. That is a strong substantive claim that warrants explicit justification.

A smaller group of studies uses panel data and within-respondent comparisons. These designs replace cross-sectional exchangeability with assumptions about counterfactual change. Identification requires parallel trends. That is, absent victimization, participation among those who become victims would have evolved on average as participation in the comparison group did. It also requires that victimization not alter behavior before it occurs. Selection on responses is compatible with these assumptions. Future victims may differ from others in how victimization would affect them, provided that those differences would not also have produced different untreated trajectories.

In the longitudinal version of the framework, stability of response type is sufficient to guarantee parallel trends. If the pair $(Y_i(1), Y_i(0))$ remains fixed within person over the observation window, untreated participation does not change within response type. The untreated change is then zero for future victims and comparison respondents alike. Note response-type stability is stronger than the usual parallel-trends assumption, however. Parallel trends requires only equality in average untreated changes, not that untreated

[3]Greenland and Robins (1986, pp. 416–417) describe the latent covariate that would secure exchangeability as the “ultimate covariate.” In this setting, response type plays the analogous role. It is unobserved, and observed covariates can proxy for it only imperfectly.

outcomes remain fixed for every person. However, response-type stability, especially in short panels, might be substantively defensible as an assumption. Researchers should make either assumption explicit when invoking parallel trends.

Next I turn to concerns about aggregation, bracketing concerns about identification. Even when a design identifies causal effects, the interpretation of the reported estimate depends on how those effects are aggregated. A population-wide claim requires aggregation over the population at large. A claim about victims requires aggregation over those victimized. The estimate supports either interpretation only when its weights correspond to the relevant target population.

For cross-sectional designs, conditional independence identifies causal effects within covariate strata. Recovering the ATE requires averaging those effects using the covariate distribution in the population. Recovering the ATT requires averaging them using the covariate distribution among victims. Regression coefficients do not generally apply either set of weights by default (Aronow and Samii, 2016; Słoczyński, 2022). Unless conditional effects are homogeneous, an estimator left to its default weighting may therefore describe neither the population at large nor victims but an effective sample defined by the estimator itself (Samii, 2016). Effect homogeneity is especially difficult to defend where theory permits opposing responses and treatment risk may covary with response type, as in the crime application.

Within-respondent designs are more naturally aligned with effects among victims because the identifying variation comes from people whose victimization status changes. Under no anticipation and parallel trends, they recover an ATT-type effect among those who become victimized. In multi-period settings with staggered victimization, aggregation raises the standard problems identified in the difference-in-differences literature. Researchers should therefore state the weighting scheme and any assumptions about effect homogeneity used to construct an overall effect among victims.

A population-wide interpretation requires a further extrapolation from victims to people who are never victimized. That extrapolation is valid only under the equivalence conditions in Corollary 1, such as equal treatment risk across response types or homogeneous effects. Otherwise, as Proposition 3 shows, the population-wide effect and the effect among victims may differ in sign.

Appendix D Partial Identification: Technical Details

This appendix provides the algebraic relationships, feasibility constraints, and computational steps used to recover the identified set of feasible parameter vectors $(\pi_\theta, \rho_\theta)$ that rationalize the participation and victimization moments observed in the LAPOP data. These parameter vectors are then mapped into the ATE and ATT expressions derived in Section 1.

A4.1 Moment Conditions Linking Observables to Principal Strata

Let $\theta \in \{A, T, U, N\}$ denote the four principal strata as in Table 1. The population shares π_θ satisfy $\sum_\theta \pi_\theta = 1$, and the stratum-specific treatment probabilities are $\rho_\theta \in [0, 1]$. The marginal probability of treatment is

$$Pr(Z = 1) = \pi_A\rho_A + \pi_T\rho_T + \pi_U\rho_U + \pi_N\rho_N.$$

For binary outcomes, the potential outcomes in Table 1 imply:

$$Y(1) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \theta \in \{A, T\} \\ 0 & \text{if } \theta \in \{U, N\}, \end{cases} \qquad Y(0) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \theta \in \{A, U\} \\ 0 & \text{if } \theta \in \{T, N\}. \end{cases}$$

Thus the unconditional participation rate satisfies:

$$Pr(Y = 1) = \pi_A + \pi_T\rho_T + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U).$$

The conditional participation rates satisfy:

$$Pr(Y = 1 \mid Z = 1) = \frac{\pi_A\rho_A + \pi_T\rho_T}{Pr(Z = 1)},$$

$$Pr(Y = 1 \mid Z = 0) = \frac{\pi_A(1 - \rho_A) + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U)}{1 - Pr(Z = 1)}.$$

These four expressions define a system of equations that any feasible vector $(\pi_\theta, \rho_\theta)$ must satisfy in order to reproduce the observed moments:

$$Pr(Z = 1), \quad Pr(Y = 1), \quad Pr(Y = 1 \mid Z = 1), \quad Pr(Y = 1 \mid Z = 0).$$

A4.2 Feasibility Constraints

A parameter vector $(\pi_\theta, \rho_\theta)$ is admissible only if:

1. $\pi_\theta \in [0, 1]$ for all θ and $\sum_\theta \pi_\theta = 1$.
2. $\rho_\theta \in [0, 1]$ for all θ.
3. The moment equations above are satisfied exactly when observed moments are substituted.
4. Participation rates generated by the model are compatible with potential outcomes (e.g., strata A and N produce no variation in participation across treatment states).
5. Given a candidate (π_θ, ρ_A), the remaining ρ_θ solve the moment conditions exactly (e.g., $Pr(Z = 1)$ must equal its observed value); ρ_A itself is not determined by the moments and is enumerated.

Parameter vectors violating any of these constraints are discarded.

A4.3 Recovering Treatment Probabilities from Observed Moments

For each candidate vector of population shares $(\pi_A, \pi_T, \pi_U, \pi_N)$ on the grid, the moment conditions allow identification (up to feasibility) of the implied ρ_T and ρ_U.
From the conditional participation rate among the treated:

$$Pr(Y = 1 \mid Z = 1) \cdot Pr(Z = 1) = \pi_A \rho_A + \pi_T \rho_T,$$

and from the conditional participation rate among the untreated:

$$Pr(Y = 1 \mid Z = 0) \cdot (1 - Pr(Z = 1)) = \pi_A(1 - \rho_A) + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U).$$

Substituting:

$$Pr(Z = 1) = \pi_A \rho_A + \pi_T \rho_T + \pi_U \rho_U + \pi_N \rho_N,$$

and using the unconditional participation moment,

$$Pr(Y = 1) = \pi_A + \pi_T \rho_T + \pi_U(1 - \rho_U),$$

yields a solvable system for ρ_T and ρ_U. Then ρ_A and ρ_N are solved as the remaining unknowns satisfying the $Pr(Z = 1)$ equation.
Any solution outside $[0, 1]$ is infeasible.

A4.4 Enumeration Algorithm

The computational procedure used in the paper is:

1. Construct a grid over $(\pi_A, \pi_T, \pi_U, \rho_A)$ with resolution 0.005, with $\pi_N = 1 - \pi_A - \pi_T - \pi_U \geq 0$. The moments leave ρ_A free, one equation short of the four treatment probabilities, so it is enumerated alongside the shares.

2. For each candidate vector, solve for ρ_T and ρ_U from the two conditional participation moments, which involve π_A and ρ_A.

3. Solve for ρ_N from the marginal victimization moment.

4. Discard the parameter vector if any $\rho_\theta \notin [0, 1]$ or if any moment equation fails to match the observed values.

5. For each remaining vector, compute:

$$ATE = \pi_T - \pi_U, \qquad ATT = \frac{\pi_T \rho_T - \pi_U \rho_U}{Pr(Z = 1)}.$$

This generates the identified sets of ATEs and ATTs used in the main text.

A4.5 Mapping Feasible Parameter Sets into ATE and ATT

Because the ATE depends only on π_T and π_U (Proposition 1), while the ATT depends on both population shares and heterogeneous treatment probabilities (Proposition 2), comparing the two estimands across feasible parameter values reveals how heterogeneous exposure patterns shape the empirical consequences of victimization.
The divergence conditions shown in Section 1 provide theoretical guidance: whenever $\rho_U > \rho_T$, the ATT will generally be smaller than the ATE, and can differ in sign. The simulations quantify this divergence by enumerating all allowable parameter vectors consistent with the observed data.

Appendix E Partial Identification: Simulation Results

A5.1 Constraining the Parameter Set

The Mexico panel results presented in the main paper suggest that people who become demobilized after crime are at greater risk of experiencing it in the first place. This helps us further narrow down the feasible sets of parameters. Since we know this relationship exists, we can be more certain about which parameters are actually producing our data. In this subsection, I present results comparable to Table 4 but constrain the parameter sets to only those where $\rho_U > \rho_T$. Table A6 reports these findings. The constrained analysis yields consistent but more pronounced patterns, which is expected given the ATT construction. A larger proportion of the feasible parameter sets show negative ATTs and positive ATEs, concentrating the constrained set further in the ATT-negative, ATE-positive region. For non-electoral participation, most of the constrained set lies where the ATT is negative and the ATE positive. This pattern is particularly evident for protest attendance and political meetings, where over 90% of parameter sets yield negative ATTs. However, there is one notable exception: the "would vote next week" measure. While the unconstrained parameter sets suggest predominantly positive ATTs (95%), constraining the sets reverses this pattern, with only 38% positive, a substantial shift. Additionally, the ATE for voting becomes equally likely to be positive or negative. This finding may help explain contradictory results regarding turnout in the literature, suggesting that the effect of crime on political participation varies significantly across contexts and populations.

Table A6 imposes $\rho_U > \rho_T$ on every outcome, including willingness to vote, the only electoral participation outcome in the survey. As discussed in the main text, however, the identified set and the within and between contrast in Sønderskov et al. (2022) suggest the ordering of treatment risks reverses for this outcome. I therefore repeat the sensitivity exercise conditioning on $\rho_T > \rho_U$, restricting attention to vectors with $ATE < 0$, and tightening the bound on $\eta_{rev} = \pi_U/\pi_T$, the number of demobilizers per mobilizer, mirroring the procedure behind Table 5. Table A7 reports the results. With η_{rev} unrestricted, 96 percent of compatible vectors yield a positive ATT. At $\eta_{rev} \leq 1.1$, the ATT is sign-identified as positive. Under this ordering of treatment risks, crime raises the willingness to vote of those it reaches, even as its population-wide effect is negative.

		ATE			ATT			ΔY	
Participation Type	$Pr(Z=1)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATE<0)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATT<0)$	**Min**	**Max**
Attended Protest	0.21	-0.23	0.76	0.13	-0.84	0.12	0.93	-0.18	0.02
Community Problem-Solving	0.19	-0.38	0.61	0.21	-0.57	0.42	0.76	-0.11	0.08
Attended Political Meetings	0.20	-0.28	0.71	0.18	-0.82	0.16	0.91	-0.17	0.03
Attended Community Meetings	0.21	-0.36	0.63	0.32	-0.68	0.30	0.85	-0.14	0.06
Would vote next week	0.22	-0.64	0.33	0.49	-0.13	0.81	0.62	-0.03	0.18

Table A6: Results from parameter sets compatible with the LAPOP data where $\rho_U > \rho_T$, in line with results from the panel analysis suggesting people who are more exposed to crime are also likely to become demobilized as a consequence of experiencing it. $\Delta Y = ATT \times Pr(Z=1)$ is the realized change in the population outcome attributable to victimization as it occurred; it is not a population-average treatment effect. By definition, $Pr(\Delta Y < 0)$ equals $Pr(ATT < 0)$.

	Bound on $\eta_{rev} = \pi_U/\pi_T$ (demobilizers per mobilizer)				
	Unrestricted	≤ 2	≤ 1.5	≤ 1.1	≤ 1.04
Share of feasible vectors with $ATT > 0$, given $ATE < 0$ and $\rho_T > \rho_U$					
Would vote next week	0.96	0.99	>0.99	**Signed** $+$	**Signed** $+$

Table A7: Sensitivity of the voting ATT sign to restrictions on the stratum-size ratio, mirroring Table 5 in the reverse direction. Cells report the share of LAPOP-compatible parameter vectors with $ATT > 0$, conditional on $ATE < 0$ and mobilizers facing higher victimization risk than demobilizers ($\rho_T > \rho_U$). Columns impose progressively tighter upper bounds on $\eta_{rev} = \pi_U/\pi_T$. Source: sensitivity_reverse_voting.csv, generated at the canonical 0.005 grid.

A5.2 Results using Dorff (2017)

One potential concern is that the simulation results might reflect sampling issues, whereby issues with the LAPOP sampling are in turn reflected in the results. For example, we might be worried that LAPOP over-represents urban areas, under-represents dangerous areas, or generally results in survey responses that do not generalize. To address such concerns, I analyze data from Dorff (2017), who conducted a nationally representative survey of 1,000 Mexican respondents that included questions about victimization and both electoral and non-electoral participation. I apply the same partial identification procedure from the main paper to this alternative dataset. For ease of comparison, I also present results from simulations conducted using only Mexican LAPOP data. All results are reported in Table A8.

As shown in Table A8, the results for comparable participation types show remarkable consistency. For party meetings, 82% of ATTs in the feasible parameter sets using Dorff data are negative, compared to 85% for political meetings using LAPOP data. Similarly, neighborhood meetings in Dorff data (53%) closely align with community problem-solving in LAPOP data (59%). Furthermore, most ATEs across all measures fall within the positive range of 70-80%. Overall, the main findings remain consistent regardless of data source: while most ATEs consistent with the data are positive (aligning with existing research), most ATTs are negative.

Panel A: Dorff (2017)									
		ATE			**ATT**			ΔY	
Participation Type	$Pr(Z=1)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATE<0)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATT<0)$	**Min**	**Max**
Attended Neighborhood Meetings	0.28	-0.38	0.61	0.31	-0.57	0.41	0.53	-0.16	0.12
Attended Party Meetings	0.28	-0.32	0.66	0.24	-0.76	0.21	0.82	-0.21	0.06
Attended Union Meetings	0.28	-0.30	0.69	0.21	-0.83	0.16	0.88	-0.23	0.04
Panel B: LAPOP - Mexico									
		ATE			**ATT**			ΔY	
Participation Type	$Pr(Z=1)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATE<0)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATT<0)$	**Min**	**Max**
Would vote next week	0.28	-0.65	0.34	0.87	-0.12	0.87	0.04	-0.03	0.25
Attended Community Meetings	0.28	-0.37	0.62	0.31	-0.68	0.30	0.72	-0.19	0.08
Community Problem-Solving	0.24	-0.36	0.63	0.30	-0.58	0.39	0.59	-0.14	0.09
Attended Political Meetings	0.28	-0.32	0.67	0.24	-0.82	0.17	0.85	-0.22	0.05
Attended Protest	0.28	-0.28	0.71	0.18	-0.88	0.10	0.92	-0.24	0.03

Table A8: Results from all parameter sets compatible with data from Dorff (2017) and LAPOP Mexico data. $\Delta Y = ATT \times Pr(Z=1)$ is the realized change in the population outcome attributable to victimization as it occurred; it is not a population-average treatment effect. By definition, $Pr(\Delta Y < 0)$ equals $Pr(ATT < 0)$.

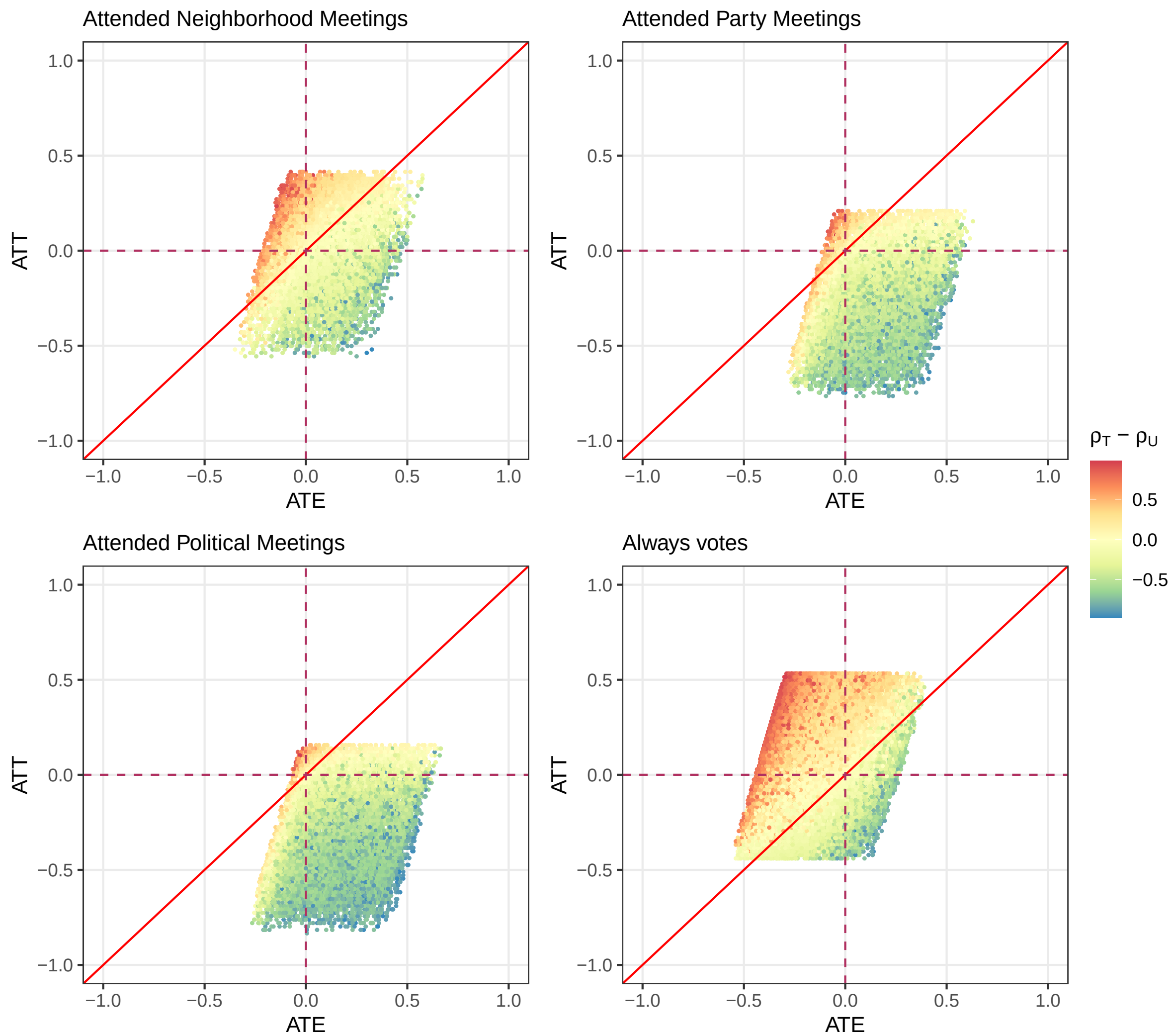

Figure A4: Figure shows the combination of potential ATTs and ATEs of victimization on four measures of political participation from Dorff (2017), conditioning on observed participation, and criminal victimization.

Appendix F Reporting Bias

The empirical results presented in the paper are based on surveys. Given the known issues with criminal underreporting (Jaitman et al., 2017), researchers favor surveys over administrative data to explore the political consequences of criminal victimization. However, survey responses are subject to misreporting. The issue might be especially important when it comes to criminal victimization. “Crime” and “crime victim” are legal and social categories. Individuals might interpret events as criminal or non-criminal differently (Skogan, 1982; Elias, 1986). Importantly, such sensitivity could correlate with demographic characteristics, political attitudes, and behavior, leading to biased conclusions regarding the difference between the ATE and the ATT (Skogan, 1982; Boulding, Mullenax and Schauer, 2022).

Heterogeneous reporting is difficult to test because it requires the researcher to observe the “ground truth” or the behavior before respondents classify it as criminal or not criminal. However, I conduct two descriptive analyses to explore whether reporting is independent of criminal exposure. First, using the ENSU survey of Mexican city dwellers, I look at whether respondents who report having been asked for a bribe by a government official also report being victims of extortion.

In a legal sense, all individuals who were asked for a bribe were also extorted by the Police. However, bribe solicitation is a more straightforward behavior to identify than extortion. Thus, it operates as “ground truth.” Suppose differences in self-reported criminal victimization are driven by differences in reporting that covary with political behavior instead of differential *exposure* to crime. In that case, individuals asked for a bribe should be no more likely to report having been extorted than the rest of the respondents. I report the results of this analysis in Table A9. Reassuringly, those asked for a bribe are 7.7 pp more likely to report being extorted, as we would expect if exposure to crime mapped onto the report of being a victim. However, results show that the more educated are also more likely to report being victimized, conditional on being asked for a bribe.

As a further test, I compare the proportion of LAPOP respondents from Mexico, Brazil, and Colombia who reported being victims of a crime the previous year with the homicide rate from the municipality where they reside. Homicide data is thought to be the best-measured crime in administrative data. To the degree that homicides covary with another type of crime, we should expect more dangerous municipalities to lead to more crime victims if exposure to crime maps onto self-reported victimization. Results are shown in Figure A5 in the Appendix. The proportion of victims is generally increasing with the municipal homicide rate for all three countries.

Together, these analyses suggest that self-reported victimization is indeed increasing with criminal victimization. However, results also suggest the politically engaged could report victimization more often, holding exposure to crime fixed. This non-rivalrous mechanism should be explored in future research.

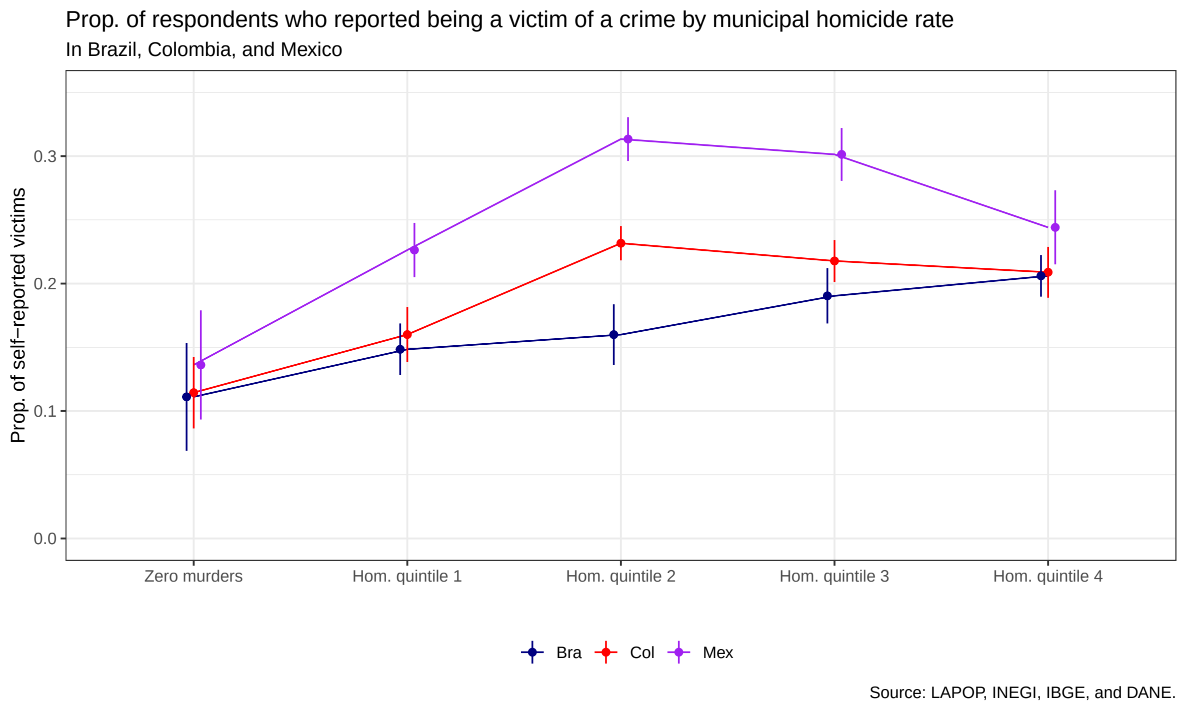

Figure A5: Figure shows the proportion of self-reported victims in LAPOP in Brazilian, Mexican, and Colombian municipalities, according to the municipal homicide rate.

	Extortion	**No Extortion**
Bribe	5972	1528
No Bribe	5585	2122

Table A9: Number of survey respondents in ENSU according to self-reported extortion victimization status and whether they were asked for a bribe during the same period.

Table A10: Extortion report and bribe solicitation

	Victim of Extortion?
Bribe solicited	0.076***
	(0.007)
Age	0.006***
	(0.001)
Age^2	0.000**
	(0.000)
Education (std)	0.027***
	(0.004)
Is employed	−0.006
	(0.009)
Is a man	−0.024**
	(0.007)
Num.Obs.	15 089
R2 Adj.	0.012

Cluster-robust standard errors shown in parentheses.
+ p < 0.1, * p < 0.05, ** p < 0.01, *** p < 0.001

A6.1 Partial Identification: Propagating Reporting Bias

This appendix formalizes how reporting bias propagates through the partial identification procedure. The aim is to characterize the direction in which biased reporting would shift the identified set, given the framework developed in Section 1. To do so, the principal stratification framework is extended with two stratum-specific reporting parameters.

Let $D^* \in \{0,1\}$ denote true victimization and $D \in \{0,1\}$ denote reported victimization. Reporting bias arises when $D \neq D^*$ for some units, in two possible directions: *over-reporting* ($D = 1$ when $D^* = 0$) and *under-reporting* ($D = 0$ when $D^* = 1$).

The principal stratification framework remains defined over potential outcomes under *true* treatment. Each unit's outcome stratum $\theta \in \{A, T, U, N\}$ specifies $Y(D^* = 0)$ and $Y(D^* = 1)$ as in Table 1. To accommodate reporting bias, I introduce two stratum-specific parameters: $\alpha_\theta = \Pr(D = 1 \mid D^* = 0, \theta)$, the over-reporting rate, and $\beta_\theta = \Pr(D = 1 \mid D^* = 1, \theta)$, the true-positive rate. Truthful reporting corresponds to $\alpha_\theta = 0$ and $\beta_\theta = 1$ for all θ. Table A11 extends Table 1 to incorporate these parameters.

Stratum (θ)	**Share**	**Pr**($D^* = 1$)	**Y(1)**	**Y(0)**	**ITE**	**Over-rep.**	**True-pos.**
Always Participate	π_A	ρ_A	1	1	0	α_A	β_A
Participate if **T**reated	π_T	ρ_T	1	0	1	α_T	β_T
Participate if **U**ntreated	π_U	ρ_U	0	1	-1	α_U	β_U
Never Participate	π_N	ρ_N	0	0	0	α_N	β_N

Table A11: Stratum-specific outcome parameters and reporting parameters. The leftmost six columns reproduce Table 1. The rightmost two columns add reporting-bias parameters: α_θ is the rate at which true non-victims in stratum θ over-report victimization, and β_θ is the rate at which true victims in stratum θ truthfully report victimization. Truthful reporting corresponds to $\alpha_\theta = 0$ and $\beta_\theta = 1$ for all θ.

The observed conditional moments that feed the partial identification procedure relate to the framework's full set of parameters $(\pi_\theta, \rho_\theta, \alpha_\theta, \beta_\theta)$ as follows. The participation rate among reported victims is

$$\Pr(Y = 1 \mid D = 1) = \frac{\sum_\theta \pi_\theta \left[\beta_\theta \rho_\theta Y_\theta(1) + \alpha_\theta (1 - \rho_\theta) Y_\theta(0)\right]}{\sum_\theta \pi_\theta \left[\beta_\theta \rho_\theta + \alpha_\theta (1 - \rho_\theta)\right]},$$

and the participation rate among reported non-victims is

$$\Pr(Y = 1 \mid D = 0) = \frac{\sum_\theta \pi_\theta \left[(1 - \beta_\theta) \rho_\theta Y_\theta(1) + (1 - \alpha_\theta)(1 - \rho_\theta) Y_\theta(0)\right]}{\sum_\theta \pi_\theta \left[(1 - \beta_\theta) \rho_\theta + (1 - \alpha_\theta)(1 - \rho_\theta)\right]}.$$

Under truthful reporting ($\alpha_\theta = 0$, $\beta_\theta = 1$), these reduce to the expressions in Section 1.

The reporting bias most commonly invoked in the literature is over-reporting that scales with participation: α_θ is higher in strata where $Y(0) = 1$ (the A and U strata, who participate even without true treatment) than in strata where $Y(0) = 0$ (the T and N strata). Under this bias, the observed treated pool $\{D = 1\}$ over-represents high-Y units who are not in fact victims. Both $\Pr(Y = 1 \mid D = 1)$ and the observed correlation between D and Y are inflated relative to their truthful-reporting counterparts.

The partial identification procedure, which takes observed conditional moments as given, therefore recovers an identified set in which both the ATE and the ATT are upward-biased. The substantive consequence is that reporting bias of this form makes the negative-ATT pattern documented in the main paper harder to recover, not easier. The result is robust to this concern in the sense that it appears despite the upward bias on both estimands.

Appendix G Participatory Consequences of Civil War and Police Contact

In this section, I reevaluate the results presented in two canonical papers on the political consequences of other types of violence. I first reassess results from Blattman (2009) linking exposure to civil war violence during childhood in Uganda to increased electoral participation in adulthood. The second is a paper linking exposure to unwanted contact with police in the US to more non-electoral and electoral participation (Walker, 2020). Both papers target the ATE as their main estimand.

When analyzing Blattman (2009), I find that, unlike the crime victimization results, both the ATT and ATE of electoral participation are positive in approximately 75-77% of parameter sets, consistent with the paper's central finding of increased electoral participation. Conversely, between 93-96% of the ATTs from non-electoral participation measures are, in fact, *negative.* For Walker (2020), we observe patterns similar to the LAPOP results: for non-electoral participation, police contact yields positive ATEs while the ATTs are negative; for electoral participation, this pattern reverses, with 93% of parameter sets showing a positive ATT while 89% show a negative ATE, highlighting how heterogeneity in treatment effects can substantially alter our understanding of violence's political consequences.

A7.1 Civil War Violence as Treatment

The political and participatory consequences of exposure to civil war violence have been studied extensively. Canonical research indicates that, contrary to theoretical predictions whereby civil war violence would make participation harder, more costly, and more dangerous, civil war experiences of violence encourage voting and non-voting participatory behavior (Bellows and Miguel, 2009; Blattman, 2009; Voors et al., 2012). One such paper is Blattman (2009). In it, the author examines how forced recruitment of youths into the LRA insurgency in Northern Uganda shapes this group's downstream participatory decisions. To do so, the author leverages quasi-random variation in abduction and survey data to estimate the ATE of abduction on political outcomes.

The author argues using qualitative evidence that abduction was as-if random, or put differently, that the probability of abduction was homogeneous regardless of individuals' strata. In such a scenario, the ATE would not only be theoretically relevant but could shape how actual participatory outcomes changed in practice. Table A12 summarizes the results. 77% of the parameters in the identified set of ATEs are positive. Interestingly and unlike results for the LAPOP analysis, we have a very similar proportion of positive ATTs in the identified set. These results seem to support such an assessment when it comes to strata of voting behavior. Overall, the results suggest it is very likely that abduction increases future voting, even if exposure to treatment were not random. However, the results seem less clear when it comes to non-electoral participation. Only in 35% of the sets does such experience lead to higher odds of becoming a community organizer if abduction were in fact random, despite the paper's point estimate of the ATE being positive and the only significant effect on non-electoral participation. Conversely, the identified ATTs in the feasible sets of all non-electoral participation suggest that abduction is linked to less civic engagement if certain individuals were heterogeneously exposed to it. Between 93%-96% of the identified sets include a negative ATT.

Blattman (2009)									
		ATE			**ATT**			**ΔY**	
Participation Type	$Pr(Z=1)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATE<0)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATT<0)$	**Min**	**Max**
Voted	0.65	-0.44	0.55	0.23	-0.46	0.54	0.25	-0.30	0.35
Peace Group Member	0.62	-0.58	0.41	0.64	-0.91	0.08	0.93	-0.57	0.05
Community Mobilizer	0.62	-0.59	0.40	0.65	-0.93	0.06	0.95	-0.58	0.04
Volunteer	0.62	-0.61	0.38	0.68	-0.95	0.04	0.96	-0.59	0.03

Table A12: Results from all parameter sets compatible with data from Blattman (2009). $\Delta Y = ATT \times Pr(Z=1)$ is the realized change in the population outcome attributable to abduction as it occurred; it is not a population-average treatment effect. By definition, $Pr(\Delta Y < 0)$ equals $Pr(ATT < 0)$.

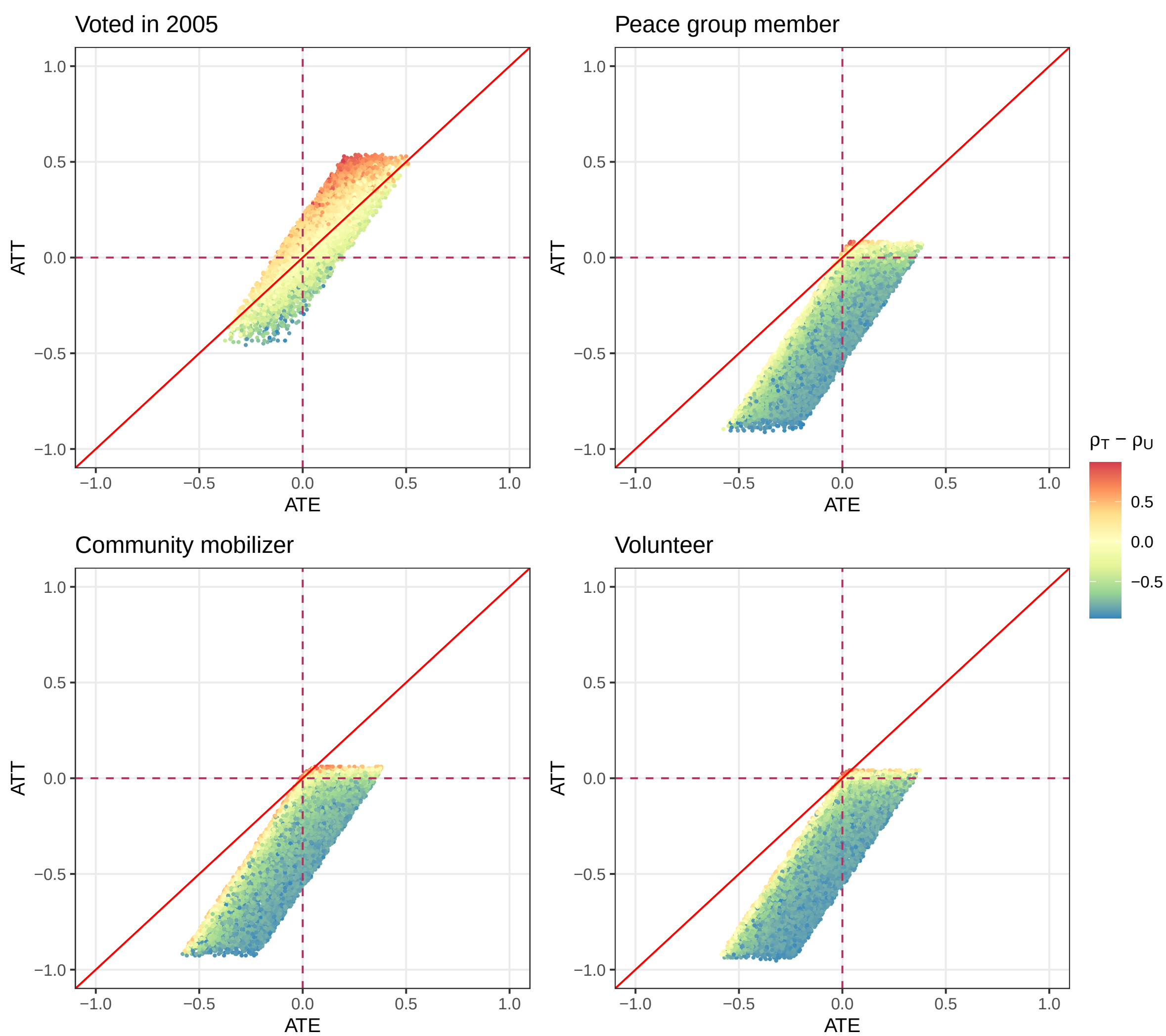

Figure A6: Figure shows the combination of potential ATTs and ATEs of child abduction on all measures of political participation from Blattman (2009).

NCPS (Walker, 2020)										
		ATE			ATT			ΔY	
Participation Type	$Pr(Z=1)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATE<0)$	**Min**	**Max**	$Pr(ATT<0)$	**Min**	**Max**
Voted	0.19	-0.65	0.34	0.89	-0.16	0.82	0.07	-0.03	0.16
Helped in campaign	0.19	-0.27	0.72	0.20	-0.75	0.24	0.79	-0.14	0.05
Attended Political Meeting	0.19	-0.32	0.67	0.25	-0.66	0.32	0.69	-0.13	0.06
Attended protest	0.20	-0.23	0.76	0.14	-0.75	0.22	0.82	-0.15	0.04
Written letter to politician	0.19	-0.40	0.59	0.41	-0.60	0.35	0.64	-0.12	0.07
Donated or raised funds	0.19	-0.46	0.53	0.56	-0.50	0.48	0.44	-0.10	0.09

Table A13: Results from all parameter sets compatible with data from NCPS (Walker, 2020). $\Delta Y = ATT \times Pr(Z=1)$ is the realized change in the population outcome attributable to police contact as it occurred; it is not a population-average treatment effect. By definition, $Pr(\Delta Y < 0)$ equals $Pr(ATT < 0)$.

A7.2 Contact with the Police as Treatment

Exploring the political consequences of interactions with the police for minority communities and individuals is a long tradition of US research. Scholars have argued that these interactions teach communities about the state and their role as second-class citizens and lead to less political participation (Soss and Weaver, 2017; Lerman and Weaver, 2014; Weaver and Lerman, 2010). However, other researchers challenge this view and argue that the experience of injustice can mobilize targeted individuals (Ang and Tebes, 2023; Walker, 2020). In this section, I reassess the part of the evidence presented in Walker (2020). Walker challenges the assumption that criminal justice contact always demobilizes political participation. She argues that people's responses to interactions with the state depend critically on how they interpret these experiences and what resources they have. When individuals, especially those with proximal contact or from minority groups, view their negative experiences as examples of systemic injustice rather than personal failure, and when they recognize their shared fate with others, they may actually increase their political participation outside of voting as a direct response to prevent further discrimination. In line with this theoretical argument, the author finds that direct and indirect experiences with the police result in more non-electoral political participation. To do so, the author relies on survey data, a research design that, conditional on observable covariates, targets the ATE of interactions with the police on participation.

I examine the parameter sets compatible with data from the National Crime and Politics Survey (NCPS), a nationally representative U.S. survey conducted in the fall of 2013. While Walker (2020) looks at the political consequences of direct and indirect contact with the police, I focus only on direct police contact, maintaining consistency with my other analyses. For dependent variables, again, I use all measures of electoral and non-electoral political participation in the preceding 12 months. I report the results in Table A13. The original study found that personal police contact increased political participation by 0.38 points on a 0-8 scale index, targeting the ATE through conditioning strategies for causal identification. Similar to the findings from the simulations fitted on the LAPOP data, the NCPS data reveal that while most parameter sets show positive ATEs for non-electoral participation, the ATTs for these same activities are predominantly negative. For voting, however, this pattern *again* reverses: 89% of parameter sets yield negative ATEs, while only 7% show negative ATTs. These results suggest that police contact is more likely to occur among individuals who respond by increasing their electoral participation while decreasing their non-electoral political engagement.

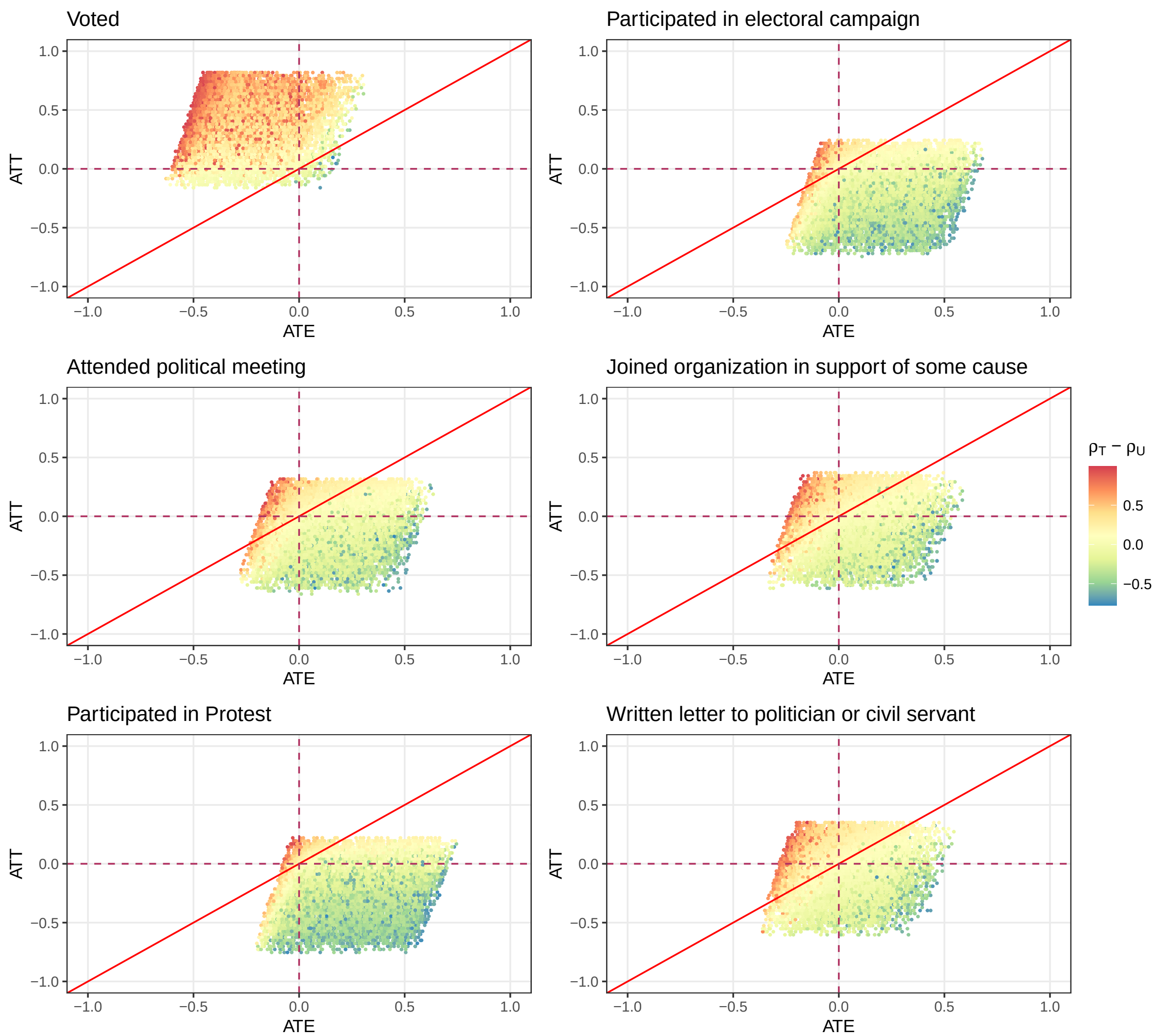

Figure A7: Figure shows the combination of potential ATTs and ATEs of direct contact with the police on all measures of political participation from Walker (2020).

Appendix H   Other ENSU results

Tables A14 and A15 report the full regression results corresponding to Figures 3 and 4 in the main text.

	Locality × Quarter FEs			**Neighborhood × Quarter FEs**		
Outcome	Estimate	SE	p	Estimate	SE	p
Conflicts						
Had any conflict	0.094	0.004	<0.001	0.092	0.005	<0.001
With authorities	0.031	0.005	<0.001	0.033	0.009	<0.001
With alcohol users, drug users, or gangs	0.025	0.002	<0.001	0.023	0.002	<0.001
With strangers on the street	0.023	0.007	0.001	0.031	0.011	0.006
With police	0.019	0.002	<0.001	0.017	0.002	<0.001
Resulted in shoving, punching, or kicking	0.010	0.003	0.002	0.006	0.005	0.283
With neighbors	0.008	0.006	0.231	0.007	0.011	0.498
With family members	0.003	0.004	0.514	−0.014	0.007	0.053
Witnessed						
Robberies	0.133	0.004	<0.001	0.120	0.005	<0.001
Vandalism	0.121	0.004	<0.001	0.109	0.005	<0.001
Drug being used or sold	0.104	0.004	<0.001	0.107	0.005	<0.001
Shots fired	0.086	0.004	<0.001	0.081	0.005	<0.001
Gangs	0.083	0.004	<0.001	0.073	0.005	<0.001
Unsafe						
Frequented streets	0.107	0.004	<0.001	0.111	0.005	<0.001
City	0.093	0.004	<0.001	0.091	0.005	<0.001
Public transport	0.089	0.004	<0.001	0.096	0.006	<0.001
Work	0.076	0.005	<0.001	0.078	0.007	<0.001
House	0.065	0.004	<0.001	0.061	0.004	<0.001
Mobility						
Frequency of leaving home	0.083	0.012	<0.001	0.103	0.015	<0.001
Leaves home everyday	0.029	0.006	<0.001	0.033	0.007	<0.001

Table A14: Cross-sectional differences between future victims and non-victims, corresponding to Figure 3. The dependent variable is indicated in each row. The coefficient is on a binary indicator for whether the respondent will report victimization in a future survey wave. All specifications compare respondents within the same geographic unit and quarter. Robust standard errors clustered at the primary sampling unit.

Outcome	**FEct (Liu et al. 2022)** Estimate	SE	p	**TWFE** Estimate	SE	p
Unsafe						
House	0.059	0.003	<0.001	0.054	0.002	<0.001
Frequented streets	0.055	0.003	<0.001	0.049	0.002	<0.001
City	0.050	0.004	<0.001	0.047	0.002	<0.001
Work	0.043	0.004	<0.001	0.037	0.003	<0.001
Public transport	0.039	0.004	<0.001	0.032	0.002	<0.001
For fear of crime						
Stopped wearing valuables	0.067	0.004	<0.001	0.061	0.003	<0.001
Stopped going out at night	0.053	0.004	<0.001	0.052	0.003	<0.001
Stopped visiting friends or family	0.051	0.005	<0.001	0.049	0.003	<0.001
Trust						
State Police	−0.056	0.010	<0.001	−0.062	0.006	<0.001
Army	−0.030	0.009	0.001	−0.029	0.005	<0.001
Mobility						
Frequency of leaving home	−0.047	0.012	<0.001	−0.026	0.007	<0.001
Leaves home everyday	−0.023	0.007	0.002	−0.014	0.004	<0.001

Table A15: Within-individual effects of victimization on behavioral and attitudinal measures, corresponding to Figure 4. FEct denotes the fixed-effect counterfactual estimator from Liu, Wang and Xu (2022); TWFE denotes a two-way fixed effects estimator with person and quarter fixed effects. Robust standard errors clustered at the primary sampling unit.

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